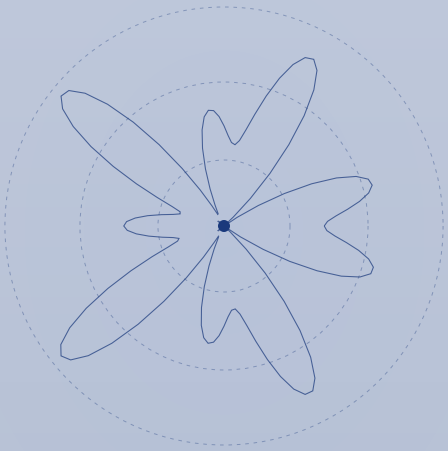
Alan Turing



Computability,
Codebreaking, and the
Patterns of Living Form

BIOGRAPHY & COMPUTATION

Alan Turing

Computability, Codebreaking, and the Patterns of Living Form

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Alan Turing

The Mechanist of Logic, Secrecy, and Living Form

Before the middle of the twentieth century, science treated a mathematical proof, an industrial machine, and a growing biological embryo as three unrelated domains. Logicians viewed deduction as an exercise of pure human intuition. Engineers built special-purpose calculators where every mathematical operation was frozen into brass gears or soldered relays. Biologists struggled to explain how a symmetrical ball of cells could organize itself into dappled skin or spiral leaves without invoking an immaterial life force.

Alan Mathison Turing dissolved the boundaries separating those three worlds by asking a single question across all of them. How do simple, local mechanical rules generate complex global order? Born in London in 1912 and educated at Sherborne School and King's College, Cambridge, Turing refused to separate pure theory from physical hardware. When confronted with a foundational question in mathematical logic, he imagined a clerk writing symbols on an endless strip of paper tape. When confronted with encrypted military radio traffic or the round-off errors of matrix algebra, he designed electromagnetic relay circuits, acoustic mercury tubes, and Bayesian scoring ledgers.

What united Turing's work was his habit of stripping every problem down to its bare discrete or differential transitions. By encoding the rules of a machine as ordinary numbers on a tape, he proved that a single universal device can imitate any other machine. At the same time, he proved that certain mathematical questions lie forever beyond mechanical decision. In his hands, logic became physical machinery, codebreaking became sequential statistical inference, and embryology became the mathematics of coupled chemical waves.

CHAPTER 1

The Sherborne Notebook and the Nature of Spirit

How Cycling Sixty Miles to School and Losing Christopher Morcom Shaped a Materialist Mind

Railroad workers, coal miners, and dockers walked off their jobs across Britain in May 1926 as the Trades Union Congress called a nationwide General Strike. When the cross-Channel ferry from Saint-Malo docked at Southampton on May 3, Alan Mathison Turing found every passenger train to Dorset canceled. Rather than wait at the port for rail service to resume, the boy retrieved his bicycle from the baggage hold and bought a road map. Over the next two days he pedaled sixty miles across Hampshire and Dorset. He stopped overnight at an inn in Blandford Forum and rode through the gates of Sherborne School the next day.

Sherborne was an old West Country boarding school whose curriculum centered on Latin, Greek prose composition, and athletic drills. Its headmaster, Nowell Smith, sent stern reports to Turing's parents, Julius Mathison Turing, a retired administrator from the Indian Civil Service, and Ethel Sara Stoney Turing. Smith warned them that a boy who preferred solitary chemical experiments to classical verse had no place in an English public school. Unmoved by the reprimands, Turing brewed iodate-sulfite clock reactions in a makeshift laboratory and ground parabolic mirrors. In 1928 he filled a pocket notebook with tensor derivations abstracted from Albert Einstein's general theory of relativity.

That intellectual isolation ended in 1927 when Turing met Christopher Collan Morcom, a slender student one year ahead of him at Sherborne. Coming from a family of engineers and scientists, Morcom combined rapid mathematical intuition with disciplined experimental habits. Together the two boys verified the Law of Mass Action in the school science rooms. They also computed perturbations in the orbits of the minor planets and searched the night sky with Morcom's telescope. In December 1929 both students rode the train to Cambridge to sit the entrance scholarship examinations for Trinity College. Morcom won an open scholarship, while Turing fell short on his first attempt.

Back at Sherborne in February 1930, Morcom collapsed with severe abdominal pain caused by bovine tuberculosis. He had contracted the infection years earlier from drinking contaminated cow's milk. After two emergency operations in a London nursing home, Morcom died on February 13, 1930. The loss forced Turing to confront a problem that merged personal grief with mathematical physics. How could a human mind, with its distinct memories and habits of thought, depend on a fragile collection of biological cells?

Between 1930 and 1932, in letters and a short manuscript titled *Nature of Spirit* written for Christopher's mother, Sara Morcom, Turing worked through four stages of a mechanistic theory of mind:

- **Rejection of Laplacian fatalism**: Under classical Newtonian mechanics, the positions and momenta of all particles at one instant fix every future movement of the body, leaving zero room for autonomous judgment.
- **Eddington's quantum indeterminacy**: Drawing on Cambridge astrophysicist Arthur Stanley Eddington's 1928 lectures on wave mechanics and Werner Heisenberg's uncertainty prin-

ciple, Turing noted that atomic transitions follow probabilistic wavefunctions rather than rigid trajectories.

- **The brain as an amplifier of micro-states**: Because neural pathways sit near unstable physiological thresholds, microscopic quantum fluctuations can tip a macroscopic cascade of nerve impulses toward one action rather than another.
- **Identity as transferable state organization**: What defines an individual mind is not the specific carbon or oxygen atoms in the skull, but the logical configuration of states that could bind to a new physical substrate.

Turing won a mathematics scholarship to King's College, Cambridge in late 1930 and enrolled in October 1931. By then, his metaphysical speculation was already hardening into a scientific program. That shift from grieving a disembodied soul to asking how physical matter stores and executes a mind's state vector guided every machine Turing designed from Cambridge to Manchester.

CHAPTER 2

The Central Limit Theorem Rediscovered Alone

King's College Fellowship and the Probabilistic Bridge to Mathematical Foundations

Experimental physicists measuring the transit of a star or the charge of an electron constantly encounter the same bell-shaped curve. Whenever an observer combines dozens of small, independent measurement errors—thermal expansion in a brass micrometer, air turbulence in a telescope tube, optical parallax at the eyepiece—the total error clusters around Carl Friedrich Gauss's normal probability distribution. During the autumn term of 1933 at Cambridge, King's College undergraduate Alan Turing attended a lecture series on the methodology of science delivered by Plumian Professor Arthur Stanley Eddington. When Eddington sketched why observational errors obey the Gaussian curve, Turing noticed a major gap. The mathematical justification rested on circular heuristic assumptions rather than a rigorous proof.

Existing British textbooks proved the Central Limit Theorem only for simplified cases. Those proofs assumed that every individual random shock followed the exact same probability distribution or possessed bounded higher moments. Turing wanted to find the exact minimal condition for a far broader case. Suppose one sums completely different, independent random variables $X_1, X_2, \ldots, X_n$ with zero means and finite variances $\sigma_1^2, \sigma_2^2, \ldots, \sigma_n^2$. When does that sum converge to a smooth Gaussian bell curve as n grows large?

Turing preferred to work problems out from scratch in his rooms at King's College rather than comb through continental journals

in the university library. He attacked the convergence problem alone across the winter of 1933 and spring of 1934. First, he defined the cumulative variance $s_n^2 = \sum_{k=1}^{n} \sigma_k^2$ and the normalized sum $Z_n = s_n^{-1} \sum_{k=1}^{n} X_k$. Next, he analyzed how adding one more small random step smooths the cumulative distribution function through convolution. He proved that the normalized sum Z_n converges to the standard Gaussian integral $(2\pi)^{-1/2} \int e^{-t^2/2} dt$ if and only if no single random variable dominates the total variance. That requirement is captured by the asymptotic tail condition:

$$\lim_{n \to \infty} \frac{1}{s_n^2} \sum_{k=1}^{n} \int_{|\,x\,| > \varepsilon s_n} x^2 \, dF_k(x) = 0$$

Here $F_k(x)$ is the probability distribution of the k-th variable and ε is any positive threshold. Only after completing the manuscript did Turing learn that the Finnish mathematician Jarl Waldemar Lindeberg had published the exact same theorem twelve years earlier. Lindeberg’s paper had appeared in the German journal *Mathematische Zeitschrift* in 1922, and William Feller added the necessity proof in 1935.

Even though the main result was no longer new to continental probability theory, Turing had bypassed characteristic functions in favor of a direct quasi-physical smoothing operator. Encouraged by group theorist Philip Hall, Turing submitted the typescript titled *On the Gaussian Error Function* for the King’s College fellowship competition in late 1934. Referee Abram Besicovitch noted that discovering Lindeberg’s theorem unaided showed remarkable analytical power. In March 1935 King’s College elected Turing a Fellow at twenty-two, providing him with rooms, dining rights, and an annual stipend of three hundred pounds.

That spring term of 1935, the newly elected Fellow enrolled in a Part III lecture course on the Foundations of Mathematics taught by Cambridge topologist Max Newman. Newman walked his students through David Hilbert's formalist program, which had aimed to place all of mathematics on a complete, consistent, and mechanically decidable footing. Newman then proved Kurt Gödel's 1931 incompleteness theorems. Those theorems showed that any consistent formal system rich enough to express arithmetic contains true statements that cannot be proved inside the system.

One final question from Hilbert's 1928 Bologna address remained open: the *Entscheidungsproblem*, or Decision Problem. Could there exist a definite mechanical procedure that takes any logical formula written in first-order predicate calculus and decides in finite steps whether that formula is provable? Within weeks of hearing Max Newman ask whether a definite mechanical method could decide the truth of any mathematical assertion, Turing set aside continuous probability distributions to construct an idealized clerk working on an endless strip of paper.

CHAPTER 3

The Paper Tape and the Uncomputable Number

How a Mechanical Clerk Destroyed David Hilbert's Dream of Complete Decidability

Proving that a mechanical procedure exists to solve a mathematical problem is straightforward. One simply writes down the algorithm and demonstrates that it halts with the right answer. Proving that no mechanical procedure can ever exist to solve a problem is vastly harder. Before 1936, mathematics possessed no rigorous definition of what a mechanical procedure or calculation actually was. To prove that David Hilbert's *Entscheidungsproblem* was unsolvable, Alan Turing first had to translate the intuitive notion of a human clerk following rules into an exact mathematical object.

Lying in the grass at Grantchester meadows outside Cambridge in the summer of 1935, Turing stripped human calculation of every inessential feature. A human clerk computing a number at a desk uses two-dimensional sheets of squared paper. The clerk looks at a few digits at a time, keeps a mental note of what step to perform next, and writes down new digits. Turing realized that two dimensions of paper are unnecessary. A single one-dimensional strip of paper tape divided into discrete squares can store any arrangement of symbols.

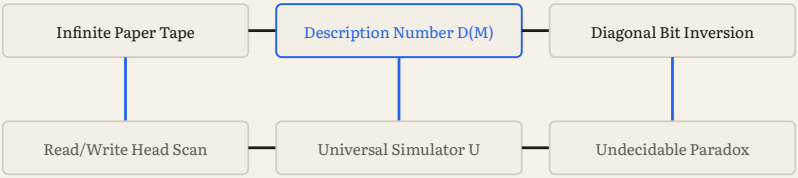


FIG. 3.1 — Architecture of Turing's 1936 Universal Machine U reading an encoded machine description D(M) on paper tape and exposing the diagonal halting contradiction.

In his 1936 paper *On Computable Numbers, with an Application to the Entscheidungsproblem*, published in the *Proceedings of the London Mathematical Society*, Turing defined his a-machine, now called a Turing machine. The device consists of an unbounded paper tape divided into squares, a scanning head that reads and writes one square at a time, a finite alphabet of tape symbols, and a finite set of internal states $q_1, q_2, \ldots, q_k$. At each discrete clock step, the pair (q_i, S_j) of current state and scanned symbol fixes the machine's next action. The head writes a specified symbol on the current square, shifts one square left (L) or right (R), and enters state q_m.

Turing defined a real number as computable if its infinite binary expansion of `0`s and `1`s can be printed square by square by a machine with a finite state table. Because every state transition rule is just a short string of letters and semicolons, Turing replaced each state, symbol, and direction with one of seven digits (`1` through `7`). Every possible Turing machine M then collapses into a single finite integer called its description number $D(M)$.

That integer encoding yielded two consequences that transformed science. First, because the rules of any machine M can be written as a number $D(M)$ on a paper tape, engineers do not need to

build separate physical machines for multiplication, differential equations, and chess. Turing wrote out the explicit state table for a single Universal Turing Machine U. Given a tape containing the description number $D(M)$ of any target machine M, the universal machine U reads the encoded instructions and simulates M step by step.

Second, Turing turned Georg Cantor's 1891 diagonal argument against the list of description numbers. Since every description number $D(M)$ is an integer, the set of all possible Turing machines is countable. Suppose a decision machine H existed that could inspect any integer n and decide in finite steps whether n describes a circle-free machine that prints an infinite sequence of binary digits $\phi_n(1), \phi_n(2), \ldots$ without stalling. One could then program a master machine B to test $n = 1, 2, 3, \ldots$ in order. At each step n, machine B simulates the n-th circle-free machine using U until it computes its n-th digit $\phi_n(n)$, and then prints the inverted digit $1 - \phi_n(n)$.

Because machine B follows a finite mechanical rule, B must possess its own description number K in the list. What happens when B reaches step K and attempts to compute the K-th digit of its own output? To compute $\phi_K(K)$, the decision sub-machine H must first finish deciding whether K itself is circle-free, triggering an infinite self-referential regress. Therefore, no mechanical procedure can decide whether an arbitrary machine ever halts or prints a given symbol `0`. Translating the tape transitions of any machine M into a first-order logical formula $Un(M)$ that is provable if and only if M eventually prints `0`, Turing proved that Hilbert's *Entscheidungsproblem* has no solution. By encoding the transition table of any specialized calculating machine as a single string of digits on a universal tape, Turing established the stored-

program principle nine years before the first electronic computer was wired.

CHAPTER 4

The Princeton Ordinal Hierarchies

Alonzo Church's Lambda Calculus, Emil Post, and Oracle Machines Over the Abyss

Across the Atlantic in April 1936, Alan Turing handed the completed typescript of *On Computable Numbers* to Max Newman at Cambridge. That same month, a journal offprint arrived from Princeton University. Working with his former doctoral students Stephen Cole Kleene and J. Barkley Rosser, American logician Alonzo Church had just published *An Unsolvable Problem of Elementary Number Theory* in the *American Journal of Mathematics*. Church used a formal system of function abstraction and variable substitution called the λ-calculus. Having proved its equivalence to Kurt Gödel and Jacques Herbrand's general recursive functions, Church had already reached the exact same negative conclusion to David Hilbert's *Entscheidungsproblem*.

At first glance, the simultaneous publication threatened to prevent Turing's paper from appearing in the *Proceedings of the London Mathematical Society*. Yet when Newman examined both arguments, he saw a vital difference. When Gödel himself read Church's λ-calculus paper at the Institute for Advanced Study, Gödel remained unconvinced that λ-definability captured all possible mechanical calculations. Turing's paper tape and scanning head, by contrast, modeled the physical act of human calculation directly. Gödel immediately accepted Turing's definition as definitive. Simultaneously in New York, logician Emil Post independently formulated an equivalent worker-and-boxes model in 1936.

Newman wrote to the London Mathematical Society and to Church at Princeton urging publication. Meanwhile, Turing added a concise technical appendix proving that every λ-definable function is computable by a Turing machine and vice versa. Sailing to New York aboard the steamer *Berengaria* in late September 1936, Turing enrolled at Princeton University to pursue a doctorate under Church's supervision. At Princeton's Fine Hall—which housed both the university mathematics department and the newly created Institute for Advanced Study—Turing worked down the corridor from Albert Einstein, John von Neumann, Hermann Weyl, and Oswald Veblen.

For his doctoral research between 1936 and May 1938, joined in friendly debates by fellow Cambridge expatriate Maurice Pryce, Turing investigated a deep question. Could mathematicians escape Gödel's incompleteness theorem by iterating formal systems across the transfinite ordinal numbers? His 1938 Princeton dissertation, *Systems of Logic Based on Ordinals* (published in 1939), established four foundational structures in mathematical logic:

- **Transfinite progression of formal systems**: Starting from an incomplete base arithmetic L_0, one adds its unprovable true Gödel sentence G_0 to form a stronger system L_1. One repeats the step through $L_2, L_3, \ldots$ and collects the union at the first infinite limit ordinal ω to form L_ω.
- **Constructive ordinal notations**: To keep the hierarchy anchored to syntax rather than abstract set theory, Turing required that every transfinite index α be represented by a concrete Turing machine description number.
- **The boundary of mechanical intuition**: Turing proved that any true number-theoretic statement of standard universal form $(\forall x R(x))$ becomes provable at stage $\omega + 1$. However, no

mechanical rule can identify which machine description number represents the ordinal $\omega + 1$.

- **The O-machine (oracle machine)**: In a brief two-page section of the dissertation, Turing defined an ordinary Turing machine augmented with a black-box oracle. That oracle answers an uncomputable query, such as whether any given machine halts, in a single step.

Even when armed with an instantaneous halting oracle, Turing showed by a second diagonal argument that the new O-machine immediately confronts its own higher-order halting problem. Although John von Neumann offered Turing a postdoctoral assistantship at the Institute for Advanced Study in the spring of 1938 at an annual salary of fifteen hundred dollars, Turing declined and returned to Cambridge that summer. In 1944, American logician Emil Post transformed Turing's 1938 oracle machine into the formal theory of Turing reducibility and degrees of unsolvability, mapping an infinite hierarchy of mathematical problems that even a halting oracle cannot untangle.

CHAPTER 5

The Riemann Zeta Gear-Wheel Machine

Cutting Brass Cams in Cambridge to Hunt Zeroes on the Critical Line

Spread across the carpet of Alan Turing's fellowship rooms at King's College, Cambridge in the summer of 1939 lay dozens of heavy, freshly milled bronze gear wheels and steel shafts. Visitors stepping around the metal parts assumed the mathematics don had taken up clockmaking or automobile repair. In fact, Turing was building an eighty-pound mechanical analog computer designed to test the deepest unsolved conjecture in pure mathematics. That conjecture was Bernhard Riemann's 1859 hypothesis on the distribution of prime numbers.

Riemann had shown that the density of prime numbers $2, 3, 5, 7, 11 \ldots$ is governed by the complex zeroes of the Riemann zeta function. For $\mathrm{Re}(s) > 1$, the function is defined by the Dirichlet series $\zeta(s) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} n^{-s}$ and extended across the complex plane by analytic continuation. Riemann conjectured that every nontrivial zero of $\zeta(s)$ has real part equal to one-half, lying along the vertical critical line $s = \frac{1}{2} + it$. If even a single zero drifted off that line, the error term in the Prime Number Theorem would develop irregular oscillations.

At Cambridge and Oxford, G. H. Hardy, J. E. Littlewood, and E. C. Titchmarsh had spent decades studying the critical line. Using punched-card tabulating machines and Carl Ludwig Siegel's 1932 reconstruction of Riemann's unpublished notes, Titchmarsh had verified in 1935 and 1936 that the first 1,041 zeroes up to height $t = 1,468$ all sit strictly on the line $\mathrm{Re}(s) = \frac{1}{2}$. Unlike Hardy, Turing suspected that the Riemann Hypothesis might actually be false

once t grew large enough. He wanted a fast machine to scan up to $t = 6,000$.

By rotating the phase of $\zeta(\frac{1}{2} + it)$ using the Riemann-Siegel theta function $\theta(t)$, one obtains the purely real-valued Hardy function $Z(t) = e^{i\theta(t)}\zeta(\frac{1}{2} + it)$. Sign changes of $Z(t)$ along the real axis pinpoint zeroes on the critical line. Under the Riemann-Siegel asymptotic expansion, evaluating $Z(t)$ reduces to summing a finite series of cosines:

$$Z(t) = 2\sum_{n=1}^{m} \frac{\cos(\theta(t) - t\ln n)}{\sqrt{n}} + R(t)$$

Here $m = \left\lfloor \sqrt{t/(2\pi)} \right\rfloor$ is the truncation cutoff and $R(t)$ is a small correction remainder. For t up to $6,000$, the sum requires at most $m = 30$ trigonometric terms.

Summing thirty cosine waves of fixed frequencies $\ln n$ is mathematically identical to predicting ocean tides from lunar and solar harmonics. Recognizing that isomorphism, Turing modeled his calculator on Lord Kelvin's nineteenth-century tide-predicting machine housed at the Liverpool Tidal Institute. In March 1939, supported by Hardy and Titchmarsh, Turing won a forty-pound grant from the Royal Society. He teamed up with Cambridge engineering student Donald MacPhail to draft the mechanical blueprints.

Because the angular frequencies $\frac{\ln n}{2\pi}$ are irrational numbers, no pair of toothed gears can represent them exactly. Turing calculated optimal rational approximations using roughly eighty meshed bronze gear wheels arranged across thirty harmonic units so the axles rotated at rates matching $\ln 2, \ln 3, \ldots, \ln 30$ to high precision. Each harmonic unit carried an eccentric pin weighted

by $n^{-1/2}$ that pulled a continuous steel wire loop over pulleys, mechanically summing the thirty cosine displacements on a dial.

Before Turing could bolt the bronze gears into their steel frame, German troops invaded Poland in September 1939 and Turing reported to Bletchley Park. Eleven years later, in June 1950, he returned to the problem electronically on the Manchester Mark 1 computer, extending verification to the first 1,104 zeroes up to $t = 1,540$. To guarantee that numerical integration did not skip a closely spaced pair of zeroes, he derived the Turing method (published in 1953), which integrated the logarithmic shift across adjacent intervals to bound the exact total zero count $N(T)$. Although his thirty-unit brass calculator never turned a single shaft before war mobilization in September 1939, the analytic error bound Turing derived to certify zeroes across adjacent intervals remains the standard verification algorithm in computational number theory.

CHAPTER 6

The Electromechanical Bombe and the Diagonal Board

Turning Enigma's Self-Reciprocal Flaw Into a Parallel Contradiction Engine

Every day at midnight during the Second World War, German military radio operators reset their portable Enigma cipher machines to a new daily key printed on water-soluble paper sheets. Inside a standard three-rotor Wehrmacht or Luftwaffe Enigma sat a keyboard, a front plugboard (*Steckerbrett*) that swapped up to ten pairs of letters via patch cords, three rotating scrambler wheels chosen from a box of five, a reversing reflector (*Umkehrwalze*), and twenty-six glow lamps. Pressing a key sent current through the plugboard, forward through all three rotors, around the reflector, backward through the rotors, and out through the plugboard to light a lamp. Across the sixty wheel orders, $17,576$ rotor start positions, ring settings, and 1.5×10^{14} plugboard arrangements, an eavesdropper faced roughly 1.58×10^{20} daily configurations.

Between 1932 and 1938, Polish Cipher Bureau mathematician Marian Rejewski and his colleagues Jerzy Różycki and Henryk Zygalski broke early German Enigma traffic by exploiting a procedural repetition. German operators encrypted a three-letter message indicator twice at the start of every message (`ABC ABC`). Rejewski designed an electromechanical rotor-stepping machine called the *Bomba* that hunted for indicator cycles. When Polish intelligence handed their *Bomba* blueprints and replica Enigma machines to British and French cryptanalysts at Pyry near Warsaw in July 1939, Alan Turing and Gordon Welchman at Bletchley Park saw a fatal vulnerability. Once the Germans stopped doubling the three-let-

ter message key—which they did in May 1940—Rejewski's *Bomba* would stop working overnight.

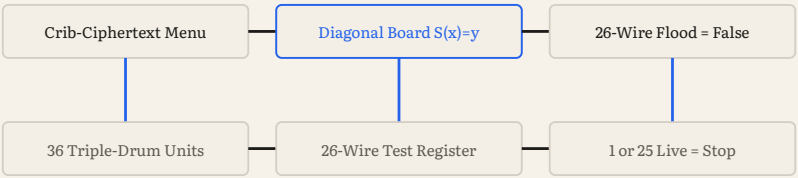


FIG. 6.1 — Logical circuit of the Turing-Welchman Bombe (1940) pairing a crib-ciphertext menu loop with Welchman's symmetric diagonal board to isolate valid rotor stops.

Working in Hut 8 in the autumn of 1939, Turing designed a new machine—the British Bombe—that abandoned indicator doubling in favor of known-plaintext *cribs*. German radiomen routinely began morning dispatches with predictable stereotypes such as `WETTERVORHERSAGE` (weather forecast). Because the Enigma reflector sent current back through the rotors on a different wire, no letter could ever encrypt to itself ($E(x) \neq x$). A cryptanalyst slid a candidate crib along an intercepted ciphertext until zero letters matched vertically. From that alignment, the analyst drew a *menu* graphing which plaintext letters encrypted to which ciphertext letters at offsets $1, 2, \ldots, k$.

The core obstacle was the plugboard. Even if the three rotor wheels were known, 1.5×10^{14} plugboard combinations masked the letters entering and leaving the drums. Turing bypassed the plugboard by wiring closed electrical loops in the crib menu. Suppose position 1 links `A` to `E`, position 5 links `E` to `R`, and position 12 links `R` back to `A`. One connects three double-ended Enigma scramblers in series set to offsets 1, 5, and 12. Any unknown plugboard

partner $S(\mathrm{A}) = \alpha$ entering the first scrambler must emerge from the third scrambler as the exact same letter α when the rotor positions are right.

Instead of testing all twenty-six possible plug partners α one by one, Turing applied voltage to a single wire on the twenty-six-wire A bundle. Electricity rippled around the loop at the speed of light. At an incorrect rotor orientation, the hypothesis $S(\mathrm{A}) = \alpha$ propagated contradictions that energized all twenty-six wires in the register. The machine ignored that flood and spun on. Only at a logically consistent rotor orientation did either a single wire stay energized (meaning the guess α was right) or twenty-five wires light up while one stayed dark (meaning the single unlit wire was the true plugboard partner).

In early 1940, Gordon Welchman realized that Enigma's plugboard was reciprocally symmetric: if A was plugged to G, then G was plugged to A ($S(x) = y \iff S(y) = x$). Welchman added a 26×26 grid of cross-soldered contacts called the diagonal board, wiring terminal y of bundle x to terminal x of bundle y. Current now flowed across branching trees as well as closed loops, eliminating almost all false stops. Engineered by Harold Keen at the British Tabulating Machine Company in Letchworth, the first one-ton Bombe (*Victory*) arrived at Bletchley Park in March 1940, followed by the diagonal-board *Agnus Dei* Bombe in August 1940. By the end of the Second World War, more than two hundred British Bombes spinning in Letchworth and outstations around Bletchley Park were testing thousands of Enigma rotor orders every day and turning electrical short circuits into naval and air intelligence.

CHAPTER 7

Banburismus and the Weight of Evidence

Punched Paper Sheets, Decibans, and Sequential Bayesian Inference Against Naval Enigma

While Hut 6 at Bletchley Park read German Army and Luftwaffe Enigma traffic regularly by the summer of 1940, the German Navy (*Kriegsmarine*) remained a locked black box. Under Admiral Karl Dönitz, Atlantic U-boat wolfpacks communicated over the *Heimische Gewässer* (Dolphin) network using a hardened operational procedure. Whereas the Army and Air Force selected three Enigma rotors from a box of five ($5 \times 4 \times 3 = 60$ possible wheel orders), the German Navy issued eight distinct rotors. Those eight wheels created $8 \times 7 \times 6 = 336$ possible three-rotor orders. Worse, naval operators looked up message indicators in secret bigram tables (*Kenngruppenbuch*) before enciphering them. That step eliminated operator-chosen indicator habits.

With only a handful of electromechanical Bombes operating in late 1940 and early 1941, testing all 336 naval wheel orders by brute force was physically impossible. A single day's traffic would have consumed weeks of Bombe time. Before Hut 8 could mount a Bombe run, Alan Turing needed a statistical filter using paper and human clerks. That filter had to deduce which three rotors sat inside the U-boat machines that day, cutting the 336 wheel orders down to a small shortlist.

Turing's answer was *Banburismus*, named after the market town of Banbury in Oxfordshire. Printers in Banbury manufactured the long, twenty-six-column ruled paper sheets used in the process. Suppose two Enigma messages are encrypted with the same wheel order and happen to step onto the exact same three-letter rotor

alignment during transmission. From that character onward, the two messages enter *depth*. Both machines then apply the exact same sequence of alphabetical substitutions until a middle rotor notches differently.

How can a cryptanalyst spot two ciphertexts in depth without knowing the plaintext or the keys? In natural German military prose, the probability that two independent plaintexts share the exact same letter at a given column is the index of coincidence $p_0 = \sum f_i^2 \approx \frac{1}{17} \approx 0.0588$. That elevation occurs because common letters like `E` and `N` collide frequently. In two random ciphertexts encrypted at unrelated rotor settings, every letter is equally likely. Repeats then occur only at the uniform chance rate $p_r = \frac{1}{26} \approx 0.0385$.

Inside Hut 8 and its outstation at Woburn Abbey, Women's Royal Naval Service operators punched the letters of each intercepted naval message as pinholes along a Banbury sheet. A clerk placed one punched sheet over another on a backlit glass table and slid it horizontally across every offset. At each alignment, the clerk counted single-letter repeats, two-letter dimers, and four-letter tetragrams where light shone through both sheets simultaneously.

To combine dozens of weak repeat counts with partial bigram clues from captured patrol vessels—such as the weather ship *Krebs* boarded near the Lofoten Islands in March 1941 and the submarine *U-110* captured in May 1941—Turing and his statistical assistant I. J. Good invented a calculus of sequential Bayesian inference. Turing defined the *weight of evidence* in favor of a hypothesis H (that two messages are in depth) against its negation $\neg H$ given observed repeat evidence E. He measured this weight in a logarithmic unit named the *ban*, and its tenth, the *deciban*:

$$W(H : E) = 10 \log_{10} \left(\frac{P(E \mid H)}{P(E \mid \neg H)} \right) = 10 \log_{10} \left(\frac{O(H \mid E)}{O(H)} \right)$$

Here $O(H) = P(H)/P(\neg H)$ is the prior odds ratio and $O(H \mid E)$ is the posterior odds ratio after observing the repeat pattern E. Taking ten times the base-ten logarithm converted Bayes’s multiplicative rule into simple addition on a clerk’s scratchpad. The formula is identical in structure to the acoustic decibel and Claude Shannon’s later bit of mutual information. Starting from prior odds of roughly -32 decibans (the one-in-sixteen-hundred chance of two random rotor starts colliding), each four-letter repeat added roughly $+20$ decibans. Once the total score crossed $+20$ decibans, the posterior odds reached one hundred to one. During the height of the U-boat wolfpack campaign in 1941 and 1942, those sliding paper sheets in Hut 8 reduced the number of three-rotor wheel orders that the Bombes had to test from 336 down to fewer than twenty.

CHAPTER 8

Delilah and the Bell Labs Tea-Time Encounter

Portable Speech Scrambling at Hanslope Park and Meeting Claude Shannon in Manhattan

Boarding the fast troopship RMS *Queen Elizabeth* on the Clyde in November 1942, Alan Turing sailed unescorted across the U-boat-patrolled North Atlantic to New York. Four months earlier, in July 1942 at Bletchley Park, he had invented a hand cryptanalytic method called *Turingery*. That method deduced the cam settings of the twelve-wheel German Lorenz SZ40/42 teleprinter cipher (*Tunny*). Meanwhile, Hut 8's break into four-rotor Atlantic U-boat traffic was finally underway. Now the British Admiralty and Foreign Office needed their chief cryptological theorist in the United States. His mission was to coordinate Bombe production with United States Navy cryptanalysts in Washington and inspect the top-secret transatlantic voice scrambler being built in Manhattan.

From January through March 1943, Turing held a security pass to Bell Telephone Laboratories at 463 West Street overlooking the Hudson River. There he audited the fifty-five-ton speech encryption terminal known to the Americans as Project X-61753 or SIGSALY, and to the British as the *Green Hornet*. Filling forty steel racks and drawing thirty kilowatts of power, SIGSALY achieved unbreakable security by slicing voice into quantized vocoder bands. It then added pure thermal noise stamped onto synchronized sixteen-inch vinyl phonograph records.

Every afternoon at teatime in the Bell Labs cafeteria, Turing sat across a table from Bell Labs mathematician Claude Shannon.

Strict wartime compartmentalization forbade Turing from mentioning Bletchley Park's Enigma Bombes or Banburismus. Equally, Shannon could not discuss his own mathematical cryptanalysis memos. Instead, the two founders of modern computing and information theory spent their afternoons discussing Universal Turing Machines and symbolic logic. Turing showed Shannon his 1936 paper *On Computable Numbers*, and the two men debated whether an electronic brain could imitate the human cortex. During one conversation, Turing remarked that his goal was not merely to program a machine to play chess. Rather, he wanted to feed a learning machine cultural ideas so it could converse like a person.

Sailing back to Britain aboard a convoy escort in March 1943, Turing pondered a hard engineering flaw in Bell Labs's SIGSALY. Forty racks of equipment and crates of vinyl noise turntables worked for stationary bunkers in Washington and London. However, army commanders and warships could never carry a fifty-five-ton machine into the field. Later in 1943, Turing transferred from Bletchley Park to the Secret Intelligence Service Radio Security Service compound at Hanslope Park in Buckinghamshire. Joined in 1944 by Royal Electrical and Mechanical Engineers officer Donald Bayley and mathematician Robin Gandy, Turing built a table-top digital speech scrambler code-named *Delilah*.

Working with soldering irons and surplus radio parts in a brick hut at Hanslope Park, Turing and Bayley compressed voice encryption into four compact subsystems totaling roughly thirty vacuum valves:

- **Time-division amplitude sampling**: Instead of using Bell Labs's ten-band frequency vocoder, *Delilah* sampled the raw voice waveform at four thousand cycles per second. That rate

converted speech into discrete voltage pulses per Nyquist's sampling theorem.

- **Orthogonal comb-filter key generator**: To replace SIGSALY's sixteen-inch vinyl noise records without a short repeating cycle, Turing mixed three free-running multivibrator oscillators through eight tuned LC filters. The circuit produced a vast pseudo-random key stream.
- **Seven-valve combining unit**: Each sampled voice voltage was added to the instantaneous key voltage modulo a fixed scale inside a minimalist seven-valve combiner. The sum wrapped around seamlessly, masking speech as flat white noise.
- **Sub-microsecond pilot synchronization**: A narrow reference frequency transmitted alongside the scrambled voice kept the receiver's eight comb filters locked in phase with the transmitter to within a fraction of a microsecond.

When Turing and Donald Bayley demonstrated the completed Delilah unit at Hanslope Park in late 1944 by encrypting and cleanly recovering a gramophone recording of Winston Churchill's voice across a desk, the entire scrambler occupied less space than four shoeboxes.

CHAPTER 9

The Automatic Computing Engine Blueprint

Mercury Delay Lines, Micro-Coded Logic Tables, and the First Subroutine Stack

Inside a sprawling Victorian residence called Bushy House in Teddington, on the southwestern edge of London, Alan Turing sat down at a desk in October 1945. His goal was to turn his 1936 Universal Turing Machine from paper tape into megahertz electronics. He had been recruited by John Ronald Womersley, the newly appointed superintendent of the Mathematics Division at the National Physical Laboratory (NPL). Turing's task was to design Britain's first general-purpose electronic stored-program computer: the Automatic Computing Engine, or ACE, a name Womersley chose in homage to Charles Babbage's nineteenth-century Analytical Engine.

Four months earlier, in June 1945, John von Neumann had circulated his famous *First Draft of a Report on the EDVAC* from the University of Pennsylvania. Von Neumann's draft described the logical division of a stored-program computer into an arithmetic unit, control unit, and memory. However, it intentionally omitted all electronic circuit schematics, pulse timings, and physical engineering details. By contrast, when Turing submitted his forty-eight-page report *Proposed Electronic Calculator* to the NPL Executive Committee at the end of 1945, he delivered a complete hardware and software engineering specification. The blueprint included vacuum-tube cathode followers, clock pulse voltages, instruction encodings, and an itemized cost estimate of 11,200 pounds.

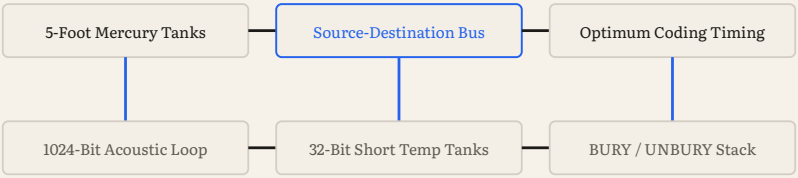


FIG. 9.1 — Architecture of Turing’s 1945 Automatic Computing Engine (ACE) pairing 5-foot mercury acoustic delay lines with optimum instruction timing and the BURY/UNBURY call stack.

Because vacuum tubes in 1945 were expensive and prone to burning out their filaments, Turing designed a lean, high-speed serial architecture clocked at one megahertz. That clock ticked once every microsecond, faster than any American machine then on the drawing board. For main working memory, he adopted acoustic mercury delay lines originally developed for wartime radar clutter cancellation. Each long delay line consisted of a five-foot steel pipe filled with liquid mercury and capped at both ends by quartz piezoelectric crystals.

When an electrical pulse struck the transmitting quartz crystal, it launched an ultrasonic pressure wave that traveled down the mercury column at 1,450 meters per second. Arriving at the far crystal 1.024 milliseconds later, the acoustic pulse was converted back into an electrical signal, reshaped by an amplifier, and fed back into the input crystal. Thus each five-foot tube held a revolving loop of 1,024 bits—thirty-two words of thirty-two bits each. He complemented those long pipes with tiny five-centimeter mercury short tanks holding a single thirty-two-bit word for immediate arithmetic access.

While von Neumann's EDVAC funneled every instruction through a single central accumulator, Turing made the ACE a minimalist transfer machine that anticipated reduced-instruction-set and transport-triggered architectures. Every instruction simply moved a word from a numbered source tank to a numbered destination tank along a highway bus. Hardware logic gates attached to specific destinations performed addition, bitwise logical operations, or shifts automatically during the transfer.

Moreover, to avoid waiting half a millisecond on average for a needed word to circulate to the end of a five-foot mercury pipe, Turing rejected sequential instruction counters in favor of *optimum coding*. Each instruction explicitly stored the timing address of the next instruction. Programmers placed instructions around the mercury loop at the exact positions where they emerged from the crystal the microsecond the previous operation finished.

To manage complex programs without losing track of return addresses, Turing's 1945 ACE report also invented the first hardware-supported subroutine call stack. He wrote out explicit instruction tables for two paired operations named `BURY` and `UNBURY`. Calling a subsidiary routine executed `BURY`, pushing the return instruction reference onto a last-in, first-out stack in memory and incrementing a stack pointer in Temporary Storage 31. Finishing the subroutine executed `UNBURY`, popping the saved address to return seamlessly to the caller. Frustrated by administrative delays at the NPL, Turing left for Manchester in 1948, while his assistant James Hardy Wilkinson and engineer Edward Newman completed the scaled-down Pilot ACE. When the Pilot ACE finally ran its first program at Teddington in May 1950 using Turing's optimum delay-line coding, its one-megahertz mercury tubes outperformed rival stored-program machines built with ten times as many vacuum valves.

CHAPTER 10

The Imitation Game and Lady Lovelace's Objection

Why Playing Chess, Learning From Mistakes, and Conversing Replaced Definitions of Thought

Asking whether a machine can think seems like a natural starting point for the philosophy of mind. Yet when Alan Turing opened his landmark paper *Computing Machinery and Intelligence* in the October 1950 issue of the philosophical review *Mind*, he dismissed the question as too ambiguous to merit scientific debate. Attempting to define the words *machine* and *think* by polling common linguistic usage reduces a technical investigation into an empty dictionary dispute. Instead, Turing replaced metaphysical definitions with a concrete, falsifiable behavioral experiment that he called the Imitation Game.

In its baseline setup, the game involves three participants isolated in separate rooms: a man A, a woman B, and a human interrogator C of either sex. To prevent vocal pitch or physical appearance from giving away the answer, all communication takes place strictly through typewritten teleprinter messages passed between the rooms. The interrogator C asks unconstrained questions—ranging from everyday habits to poetry composition and arithmetic—while A tries to deceive the interrogator and B tries to help the interrogator identify who is who. Turing then posed his operational replacement question. What happens when a programmed digital computer takes the place of player A in the game? Specifically, how often will the interrogator guess wrongly compared to when a human is playing?

Because a digital computer is a physical realization of his 1936 Universal Turing Machine, Turing proved that constructing a specialized mechanical brain is unnecessary. Any discrete-state machine can be mimicked to arbitrary fidelity by programming a single universal computer equipped with sufficient memory capacity. He estimated that roughly 10^9 to 10^{10} binary digits of storage would suffice to fool an average interrogator across a five-minute teleprinter interrogation.

In the centerpiece of the 1950 paper, Turing anticipated and dismantled nine major philosophical, mathematical, and biological objections to machine intelligence. Four technical rebuttals formed the core of his argument:

- **The Mathematical Objection**: Critics invoke Kurt Gödel's 1931 incompleteness theorem and Turing's own 1936 halting problem to argue that any fixed formal machine must fail on certain self-referential questions. Turing replied that human mathematicians frequently make calculation errors of their own. Moreover, humans possess zero proven immunity to simultaneous incompleteness limits across the human brain.
- **The Argument from Consciousness**: Philosophers such as Geoffrey Jefferson argued in his 1949 Lister Oration that no machine truly thinks until it writes a sonnet out of felt emotion. Turing pointed out that taking that standard literally leads straight to solipsism. After all, the only way any person verifies consciousness in another human being is by observing external conversation and behavior.
- **Lady Lovelace's Objection**: In her 1843 memoir on Charles Babbage's Analytical Engine, Augusta Ada, Countess of Lovelace, stated that the machine has no pretensions to originate anything. It can only execute whatever we know how to order it to perform. Turing answered that deterministic rule

tables routinely generate consequences that surprise their human designers. Programmers simply cannot compute millions of intermediate state steps in their heads in advance.

- **The Argument from Fallibility and Randomness**: Critics object that a strict rule-following computer can never make a creative slip or vary its responses. Turing noted that a programmer can easily insert a pseudo-random digit generator or allow learning rules to modify their own transition tables through experience.

In the closing pages of the paper, building on his 1948 NPL report *Intelligent Machinery*, Turing calculated that hand-coding a complete adult mind would be far too brittle. Instead of attempting to write a static program for an adult chess player or conversationalist from scratch, the final pages of Turing's 1950 paper outlined the training of an unorganized child machine through reward, punishment, and empirical experience.

CHAPTER 11

The Matrix Condition Number and LU Decomposition

Inventing Modern Numerical Linear Algebra to Measure Round-Off Error

Designing aircraft wings, artillery trajectories, or structural trusses in the late 1940s required solving systems of n linear algebraic equations in n unknowns, written in matrix form as $Ax = b$. Since the time of Carl Friedrich Gauss in the early nineteenth century, human computers had solved small linear systems of five or ten variables by Gaussian elimination. The clerk subtracted multiples of the first row from lower rows to eliminate one variable at a time until the matrix became triangular. Executing Gaussian elimination on an $n \times n$ matrix requires roughly $\frac{1}{3}n^3$ multiplications and additions.

As soon as electronic computers promised to solve systems of $n = 50$ or $n = 100$ equations—requiring hundreds of thousands of sequential arithmetic steps—mathematicians raised an alarm over cumulative round-off error. Because a digital computer stores each real number in a fixed register of t binary digits, such as thirty-two or forty bits, every multiplication rounds off the tail of the fraction. In 1943, statistician Harold Hotelling calculated a worst-case bound suggesting that rounding errors in elimination could amplify by a factor of 4^{n-1}. That rate would wipe out forty bits of precision by $n = 21$. Even when John von Neumann and Herman Goldstine published a landmark 1947 analysis at the Institute for Advanced Study, they remained pessimistic about applying standard unsymmetric Gaussian elimination to large matrices.

Working at the National Physical Laboratory in Teddington in 1947 alongside numerical analyst James Hardy Wilkinson, Alan Turing suspected that the catastrophic 4^{n-1} error growth was an artifact of overly pessimistic worst-case assumptions. In his 1948 paper *Rounding-Off Errors in Matrix Processes*, published in the *Quarterly Journal of Mechanics and Applied Mathematics*, Turing laid the mathematical foundations of modern numerical linear algebra.

First, Turing proved that every variant of Gaussian elimination is simply a disguised way of factoring the original matrix A. Specifically, it decomposes A into the product of a unit lower-triangular matrix L (with ones on the diagonal) and an upper-triangular matrix U. To prevent a tiny number on the diagonal from dividing a row and blowing up rounding errors, Turing formalized *partial pivoting*. At each column step, the computer searches down the column for the entry of largest absolute magnitude. It then swaps rows via a permutation matrix P before eliminating, yielding the canonical factorization $PA = LU$. With partial pivoting enforced, every multiplier in L has magnitude at most unity, choking off exponential error amplification.

Second, Turing recognized that analysts were confusing two completely different sources of numerical inaccuracy: instability in the elimination algorithm versus intrinsic sensitivity in the matrix A itself. Suppose the right-hand side vector b is perturbed by a tiny measurement error δb. That input nudge causes the true mathematical solution $x = A^{-1}b$ to shift by $\delta x = A^{-1}\delta b$ even under infinitely precise arithmetic. Taking matrix norms $\| A \|$ and vector norms $\| x \|$, Turing showed that the relative amplification of input errors is governed by a single dimensionless invariant. He defined the matrix condition number $\kappa(A)$ (introduced in his paper via his M-condition number

$M(A) = n \max_{i,j}|\ a_{ij}| \max_{i,j}|\ (A^{-1})_{ij}|$ and root-mean-square N-condition number $N(A)$):

$$\kappa(A) = \| A \| \cdot \| A^{-1} \| \geq \frac{\| \delta x \| / \| x \|}{\| \delta b \| / \| b \|}$$

When $\kappa(A) \approx 1$, the matrix is well-conditioned and small perturbations produce small changes in x. When $\kappa(A) = 10^{10}$, the matrix is nearly singular (ill-conditioned). Any representation of A rounded to ten decimal digits already loses almost all accuracy before the algorithm performs a single subtraction. By proving that statistical round-off errors in pivoted Gaussian elimination grow mildly while the condition number $\kappa(A)$ dictates precision loss, Turing exonerated direct matrix elimination. Every modern scientific computing library that solves linear equations—from LAPACK and MATLAB to tensor accelerators—executes Turing's 1948 pivoted LU factorization and monitors his condition number to separate matrix ill-conditioning from hardware rounding noise.

CHAPTER 12

The Chemical Basis of Morphogenesis

How Two Diffusing Molecules Carve Leopard Spots, Zebra Stripes, and Fibonacci Spirals

Drop a bead of blue ink into a still glass of water and Fick's law of diffusion does only one thing. Random thermal motion drives ink molecules from regions of high concentration to regions of low concentration until the water turns a uniform, featureless pale blue. For centuries, that physical law posed a deep paradox for embryology. A fertilized animal egg begins its development as a nearly spherical, genetically uniform ball of cells called a blastula. Every cell carries the exact same genes, and chemical diffusion normally smooths out concentration differences. How, then, does a homogeneous embryo spontaneously break its own rotational symmetry to sprout six tentacles on a freshwater *Hydra*, stripes on a zebra, or five fingers on a limb bud?

After moving to the University of Manchester in 1948 and winning election as a Fellow of the Royal Society in March 1951 (nominated by Max Newman and Bertrand Russell), Alan Turing turned his attention from logic gates to mathematical biology. Even during the harrowing months of early 1952, he pressed forward with the calculations. Manchester police arrested him in early 1952 for a consensual relationship with another man under Victorian gross indecency statutes. The resulting March 1952 conviction stripped his security clearance and forced him to endure a year of synthetic estrogen injections at his home in Wilmslow, Cheshire. Throughout that ordeal, Turing worked night shifts on the newly installed Manchester Ferranti Mark 1 computer to finish his landmark study in biological physics.

Published in the August 1952 issue of the *Philosophical Transactions of the Royal Society of London, Series B* under the title *The Chemical Basis of Morphogenesis*, the paper introduced the concept of *morphogens*. These are diffusing chemical signaling molecules, such as hormones or skin pigments, that react with one another and instruct embryonic cells how to differentiate. In a continuous sheet or ring of tissue, Turing modeled two interacting morphogens with concentrations $u(x,t)$ and $v(x,t)$ governed by coupled reaction-diffusion partial differential equations:

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial t} = f(u,v) + D_u \nabla^2 u, \qquad \frac{\partial v}{\partial t} = g(u,v) + D_v \nabla^2 v$$

Here $f(u,v)$ and $g(u,v)$ represent the local chemical production and degradation rates inside each cell. The operator ∇^2 is the spatial Laplacian measuring curvature in concentration, and D_u and D_v are the physical diffusion coefficients of the two molecules across cell membranes.

Turing discovered a counterintuitive mathematical instability—now called a Turing or diffusion-driven instability. Adding diffusion to a locally stable chemical mixture can destabilize uniformity and carve stationary spatial waves. Suppose morphogen u is a short-range autocatalytic *activator* that stimulates both its own synthesis ($\frac{\partial f}{\partial u} > 0$) and the synthesis of a second molecule v ($\frac{\partial g}{\partial u} > 0$). Morphogen v, in turn, acts as an *inhibitor* that suppresses u ($\frac{\partial f}{\partial v} < 0$) and degrades itself ($\frac{\partial g}{\partial v} < 0$).

In a well-stirred beaker without spatial diffusion ($D_u = D_v = 0$), the homogeneous equilibrium (u_0, v_0) is completely stable, and any perturbation dies back to flatness. Suppose, however, that the inhibitor molecule v diffuses through embryonic tissue significantly faster than the activator u ($D_v > D_u$). When random ther-

mal noise creates a tiny local peak of activator u, the slow activator stays trapped at that spot and amplifies itself. Simultaneously, the newly created inhibitor v races outward into the surrounding tissue and prevents any neighbor peaks from forming within a characteristic inhibition radius.

By expanding spatial perturbations into Fourier modes $\cos(kx)$, Turing proved that a narrow band of spatial wavenumbers k acquires a positive real eigenvalue. That dominant mode grows exponentially until chemical saturation locks in a periodic stationary wave of wavelength $\lambda = 2\pi/k_{\max}$. On a narrow cylinder, those waves form striped rings; on a two-dimensional skin surface—computed numerically by Turing on the Ferranti Mark 1—they break into mottled blotches and leopard spots. On a growing plant apex, which Turing analyzed in Wilmslow until his death on June 7, 1954, those coupled waves generate the Fibonacci parastichy spirals ($F_n \in \{2, 3, 5, 8, 13, 21, \ldots\}$) of sunflower heads and fir cones. Four decades after Turing solved those coupled reaction-diffusion equations on the Manchester Mark 1, experimental chemists in 1990 and developmental biologists studying vertebrate skin and digit spacing confirmed stationary Turing waves operating inside living embryos.